Foundations in Data Engineering

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1 Basic building blocks: data formats and the command line

Given a large, unknown dataset, the first questions are what the data look like, which tool suits the analysis, and what hardware it requires. This section covers how datasets are encoded for exchange, and how the standard Unix command-line tools give a first impression of a dataset and answer simple queries on it without writing a program.

1.1 Data exchange formats

Datasets are exchanged as plain text (CSV and its variants), as text encoding semi-structured data (XML, JSON), in open binary formats such as **Parquet**, or in proprietary binary formats; the latter are poorly suited to exchange, since only the vendor's software reads them. Faced with an unknown file, the tool `file` guesses its format from its content. Below, the same two records (name, address, job) are written in each text format.

CSV. A **CSV** (comma separated values) file stores one record per line, its fields separated by a delimiter. The delimiter is configurable: with a tab one gets **TSV**. The format is simple, human readable and extremely widespread, but full of subtleties because it is weakly standardised: a field that contains the delimiter must be quoted, and a quote character inside a quoted field is doubled (the value `a"b` is written `"a""b"`). Records are flat: a row of fields, with no nesting.

```
Sherlock Holmes,221B Baker Street,Detective
James Moriarty,Reichenbach Falls,Villain
```

Written as "surname, first name", the first field would contain the delimiter and need quotes:

```
"Holmes, Sherlock",221B Baker Street,Detective
```

XML. **XML** encodes (semi-)structured data as a tree of nested elements delimited by opening and closing tags, possibly with attributes. In the example a root element contains one empty element `<person ... />` per record, whose fields are attributes:

```
<characters>
<person name="Sherlock Holmes" address="221B Baker Street" job="Detective"/>
<person name="James Moriarty" address="Reichenbach Falls" job="Villain"/>
</characters>
```

XML is better standardised than CSV and handles nested data, but it is very verbose (every value is wrapped in markup), human readable yet tedious to write, and its full specification is very complex. Advanced features such as **XML Schema** (a description of the allowed document structure) exist but are rarely used; its popularity is declining.

JSON. **JSON** (JavaScript Object Notation) is a much simpler text format. A JSON document is always an **array** `[v1, v2, ...]` or an **object** `{"key": value, ...}`: items are separated by commas, keys are strings in double quotes followed by a colon and a value, and values may again be arrays or objects, so data can be nested. There are only six data types: string, number, boolean, null, object and array. The two records form an array of two objects:

```
[{"name": "Sherlock Holmes", "address": "221B Baker Street", "job": "Detective"},
 {"name": "James Moriarty", "address": "Reichenbach Falls", "job": "Villain"}]
```

JSON is less verbose and easier to write than XML, and increasingly popular.

Remark. The most common JSON errors violate exactly these rules: unquoted keys, strings in single instead of double quotes, and a trailing comma after the last item of an array or object.

Format	Encoding	Structure	Verbosity	Standardisation and use
CSV/TSV	text	flat rows	low	weak, many subtleties; very popular
XML	text	nested	very high	well standardised, complex spec; declining
JSON	text	nested	moderate	simple spec; growing

Table 1: The text-based exchange formats compared.

1.2 Streams and pipes

Text files are popular because they are human readable and easy to process. The Unix command-line tools are available by default on every Unix/Linux system; each is simple, but they are surprisingly powerful in combination. They are ideal to get a first impression, to explore the data and to run simple analyses without code; for the real analysis one usually moves on to a more suitable tool.

Standard streams. Every process has three standard streams, identified by number: **stdin** (0) for input, **stdout** (1) for output and **stderr** (2) for error messages. A **pipe** feeds the stdout of one command into the stdin of the next, and **redirection** connects a stream to a file instead (fig. 1); the **null device** `/dev/null` discards what is written to it, so redirecting stderr there suppresses error messages. Since errors travel on their own stream, they do not mix with the data flowing through a pipeline. Most tools read the files given as arguments, or stdin if there are none.

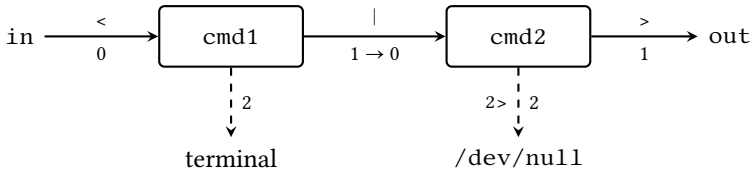


Figure 1: Streams of `cmd1 < in | cmd2 2> /dev/null > out`; stderr of `cmd1` still goes to the terminal.

Streaming large and compressed files. A tool in a pipeline sees its input as a stream of lines, so files are processed without being loaded or copied. In particular, the `*cat` variants of the compressors (gzip: Lempel–Ziv; bzip2: Burrows–Wheeler transform; xz: LZMA2) decompress to stdout, and a compressed dataset can be analysed without ever writing the decompressed data to disk. Pagers and prefix/suffix tools (`less`, `head`, `tail`) and counts (`wc`) give the first impression of a file: what a record looks like, how many there are.

1.3 Command-line tools as relational operators

A line-based text file can be read as a relation: each line is a tuple, and the fields separated by a delimiter (whitespace, a comma, a tab) are its attributes. The tools then act as relational operators on a stream of tuples, and a pipeline composes them into a query (table 2 and fig. 2).

Operator	Tool
selection (keep the lines satisfying a predicate)	`grep` (regular expression), `grep -v` (negated)
projection (keep some attributes)	`cut` (fields), `grep -o` (matched part)
sorting, duplicate elimination	`sort`, `uniq`
grouping with count	`sort`, then `uniq -c`
top-k, minimum, maximum	`sort`, then `head` or `tail`
join (inner, outer, anti)	`join` on sorted inputs
map (rewrite each line)	`sed`
aggregation (count, sum, average)	`wc -l`, `awk`
random sample	`shuf`, then `head`

Table 2: Command-line tools seen as relational operators; their flags are collected in section A.

Selection with regular expressions. A **regular expression** (regex) describes a set of strings. `grep` keeps the lines that contain at least one substring matched by the regex (selection), `grep -v` the lines that contain none (negated selection), and `grep -o` prints only the matched substrings, one per line (projection onto a pattern-defined part of the line); `sed` uses the same syntax for substitutions. A regex is built from the following pieces (table 3): ordinary characters match themselves; metacharacters have a meaning and match literally only when escaped with a backslash; a **quantifier** applies to the single item just before it (a character, a class or a group).

	Regex	Matches
characters	`a`, `.`, `\.`	the letter `a`; any single character; a literal dot
classes	`[abc]`, `[a-z0-9_]`	one character from the set (ranges allowed)
	`[^abc]`	one character *not* in the set
	`[[:space:]]`, `[[:digit:]]`	one whitespace character; one digit
quantifiers	`r*`, `r+`, `r?`	≥ 0, ≥ 1, 0 or 1 repetitions of `r`
	`r{n}`, `r{n,}`, `r{n,m}`	exactly n, at least n, between n and m
anchors	`^`, `$`	start, end of the line (match no character)
groups	`(r)`, `r|s`, `\1`	group; `r` or `s`; the text matched by group 1

Table 3: Regular expression syntax (extended form).

Basic and extended syntax, greediness. `grep` and `sed` use the **basic** syntax by default, in which `+ ? { } ( ) |` are ordinary characters and the operators must be escaped (`\{n,\}`, `\(r\)`; GNU also accepts `\+ \? \|`); `grep -E` (and `sed -E`) switch to the **extended** syntax of table 3. A regex is not anchored: `\.jpg` matches any line containing `.jpg`, and `^` or `$` are needed to pin it to the start or end. Quantifiers are **greedy**, i.e. they take the longest possible match, so `user=.*$` extracts everything from `user=` to the end of the line.

Remark. On the command line the regex is put in single quotes, so that the shell does not interpret `*`, `$` or `|` itself. The shell has its own patterns (**globs**) for file names, with a different meaning of `*`: the glob `*.html` ("any string, then `.html`") corresponds to the regex `^.*\.html$`, whereas in a regex `*` repeats the item before it.

Example 1.1 (Reading regexes)**.** `img[0-9]*\.jpg` matches `img` followed by zero or more digits and `.jpg`: it matches the lines `img.jpg`, `img7.jpg`, `img123.jpg`, and also `myimg12.jpg.bak` (the regex is not anchored), but not `imgA.jpg` (a letter is not a digit) nor `img5xjpg` (`\.` requires a dot). The regex `^warning` with `grep -v` keeps the lines that do not start with `warning`.

Example 1.2 (Extracting e-mail addresses)**.** With `grep -o -i -E`, the regex

$$\underbrace{\texttt{[_.a-z0-9]+}}_{\text{local part}}\ \texttt{@}\ \underbrace{\texttt{[a-z0-9]+}}_{\text{domain}}\ \underbrace{\texttt{\textbackslash.}}_{\text{dot}}\ \underbrace{\texttt{[a-z]\{2,\}}}_{\text{top-level domain}}$$

prints each e-mail address of the input on its own line: one or more letters, digits, underscores or dots, then `@`, one or more letters or digits, a literal dot and at least two letters (`-E` because of `+` and `{2,}`, `-i` so that the classes also cover capital letters). On `Ada.Lovelace@Example.ORG` it returns the whole address. It is a simplification of the full standard: the domain class contains neither dots nor hyphens, so from `x@in.tum.de` it extracts only `x@in.tum`, and `foo@mail-server.com` is not found at all.

Order matters. `sort` compares lexicographically unless told to compare numerically (so `10` comes before `9`), and it works on inputs larger than main memory. Its output is the required input of `uniq` and `join`: `uniq` only merges *adjacent* equal lines, and `join` merges two files by scanning both in order. Grouping is therefore sort-based: sorting brings equal values together, then `uniq` counts each run. The lines "occurring exactly once" (`uniq -u`) are not the distinct lines (plain `uniq`).

Top-k and frequencies. A **top-k query** is a sort followed by taking a prefix or a suffix; $k = 1$ gives the minimum or the maximum. Composed with grouping it yields the k most frequent values of an attribute (fig. 2).

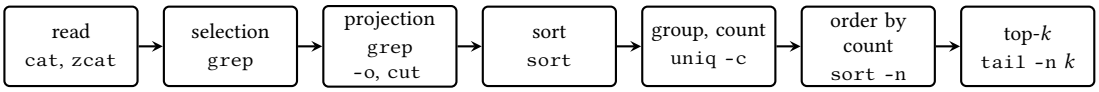


Figure 2: A pipeline computing the k most frequent values of an attribute, stage by stage.

Join. `join` pairs the lines of two sorted files with equal join field (an inner join). Keeping in addition the unmatched lines of the first, the second or both files gives the left, right and full **outer join**; keeping *only* the unmatched lines of one file gives the **anti-join**, which answers "which values of one list never occur in another". For heavier use of joins a more powerful tool is the better choice.

Map and aggregation. `sed` rewrites each line by substituting the matches of a regex; the replacement may refer to the whole match (`&`) or to the groups of the regex (`\1`, `\2`, …). For instance, the substitution (basic syntax)

```
s/IMG_\([0-9]*\)\.JPG/image\1.jpg/
```

renames `IMG_0042.JPG` to `image0042.jpg`. Replacing whitespace by newlines puts one word per line, which reduces word-level questions (e.g. word frequencies) to the line-level operators above. `awk` runs a small program in one pass: an initialisation, a block executed on every line (with access to its fields), and a final block. Writing a_i, b_i for the first two fields of line $i = 1, \dots, n$, this computes aggregates such as

$$n, \qquad \sum_{i=1}^{n} b_i, \qquad \frac{1}{n}\sum_{i=1}^{n} b_i, \qquad \sum_{i\colon a_i > 10} b_i,$$

by accumulating a sum and a count in variables and printing them (or their ratio) at the end.

Sampling. `shuf` outputs a random permutation of its input, so a prefix of it is a uniform random sample without replacement. A plain prefix of the file is not: files are often ordered (by time, by key), so their first lines are not representative. Shuffled inputs also serve for performance tests.

Limits. These tools stream their input and `sort` works beyond main memory, so they scale to large files and are ideal for a first look and simple queries. They operate on lines of text, however: they know nothing about quoting (`cut` splits a quoted CSV field containing the delimiter) or nesting, and anything beyond simple joins and aggregates calls for more powerful tools.

2 Performance and efficiency on a single machine

The tools of section 1 reveal the structure of raw data through small composable transformations. The next question is when a more powerful tool, or more hardware, is needed: what performance a single machine delivers, how far high-level tools are from hand-written code, what the hardware limits are, and how large a cluster would have to be to do better. This section reviews the hardware trends and the memory hierarchy, and shows how the order of the accesses and the layout of the data in memory change the running time without changing the algorithm.

2.1 Efficient baselines and hardware trends

Efficient baselines. Many big-data systems are evaluated only by their **scalability**, the speed-up obtained by adding cores or machines, measured against the same system on one core instead of a good single-threaded implementation. This can mislead: a system A may reach a speed-up of about 50 on 300 cores while a system B levels off around 5, and still B is faster than A at every core count, because A is much slower to begin with. Scaling out is the right choice when it is needed, but only after a careful implementation on one machine ("you can have a second computer once you've shown you know how to use the first one", P. Barham).

Remark. The paper *Scalability! But at what COST?* (McSherry, Isard, Murray, 2015) calls COST of a system the configuration (number of cores) it needs to outperform a competent single-threaded implementation.

Example 2.1 (PageRank on one thread)**.** Table 4 reports the time of twenty iterations of PageRank on two graphs (the Twitter follower graph and the web graph uk-2007-05) for published graph-processing systems running on 2 to 128 cores, and for a careful single-threaded implementation. On Twitter only GraphLab (128 cores) beats the single thread; on uk-2007-05 only GraphX (128 cores) does. If the data fit on the SSD or in the DRAM of one machine, scaling beyond it may not pay off.

System	Cores	Twitter	uk-2007-05
GraphChi	2	3160 s	6972 s
Stratosphere	16	2250 s	–
X-Stream	16	1488 s	–
Spark	128	857 s	1759 s
Giraph	128	596 s	1235 s
GraphLab	128	249 s	833 s
GraphX	128	419 s	462 s
single thread (SSD)	1	300 s	651 s
single thread (RAM)	1	275 s	–

Table 4: Twenty iterations of PageRank: scalable systems against one thread.

End of Dennard scaling. For decades the number of transistors per chip grew exponentially (**Moore's law**) and single-threaded performance doubled every 18 to 22 months. **Dennard scaling** states that as transistors get smaller their power density stays constant, so that power consumption stays proportional to chip area. As long as it held, every generation packed more transistors and ran them at a higher clock frequency for about the same power. It broke down around 2004, when voltage could no longer be scaled down together with transistor size: from then on a higher frequency means more power, hence more heat, than a chip can dissipate (the **power wall**). Since then clock frequency and typical power have plateaued, Moore's law has slowed down, single-threaded performance stagnates, and the extra transistors go into more parallelism instead, especially on servers. Three effects follow.

Effect 1: parallelism. The industry switched from making a single core faster to adding cores. In AMD server processors the maximum number of physical cores went from 1 in 2003 to 32 with the first EPYC (2017) and 256 in 2026. Software used to rely on **instruction-level parallelism** (ILP), which hardware and compiler exploit implicitly, without the programmer's help. The parallelism offered now is explicit: **thread-level parallelism** (TLP, many cores) and **data-level parallelism** (DLP). Exploiting TLP and DLP requires restructuring the application; this is the topic of the next lecture.

SIMD. Within general-purpose processors DLP takes the form of **SIMD** instructions (single instruction, multiple data): one instruction applies the same operation to all the values packed in a vector register. The width of these registers has grown steadily, as Intel's extensions show (fig. 3): MMX, 64 bits (1997); SSE, 128 bits (1999); AVX and AVX2, 256 bits (2011 and 2013, for floating point and integers); AVX-512, 512 bits (2017). Vector processors and GPUs push the same idea further and are increasingly popular.

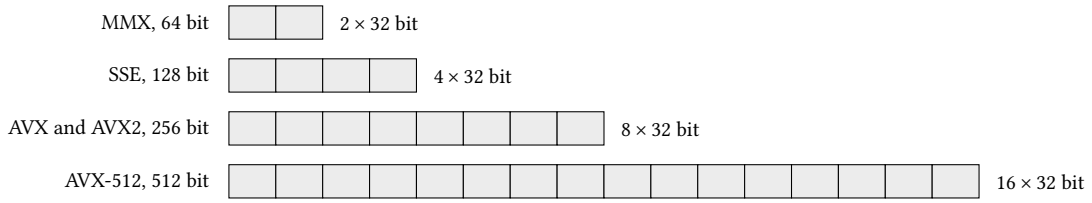


Figure 3: Register width of Intel's SIMD extensions, as the number of 32-bit values one instruction processes.

Effect 2: the memory wall. Memory bandwidth grows more slowly than the core count, so the DRAM bandwidth available per core has decreased: on Intel server processors it fell from about 12 GB/s in the early 2000s to 3–4 GB/s around 2016, and recent AMD EPYC generations offer a theoretical maximum of only 3–5 GB/s per core. Meanwhile the cost of computation (per GFLOP/s) has fallen much faster than the cost of DRAM and disk capacity (per TB). Memory has become "the new disk": the gap between processor and DRAM now plays the role that the gap between DRAM and disk used to play, so processors need a multi-level cache hierarchy, and programs must use registers and caches carefully (section 2.2). Caches bring their own pitfalls: cache pollution, the coherence protocol between the caches of different cores (MESI), timing attacks.

Effect 3: hardware specialisation. Further gains come from **domain-specific architectures** (DSAs), hardware specialised for one class of tasks: GPUs, TPUs, NPUs, FPGAs, ASICs. Specialised hardware was the norm before general-purpose processors took over (database machines, Lisp machines) and is spreading again: special instructions (AVX-512, AMX for matrices), AI accelerators and NPUs, SmartNICs and DPUs (network cards that run code), computational storage (smart SSDs), FPGAs, and on-chip accelerators that take memory copies, (de)compression and scan/filter off the cores. The trend towards **active hardware** processes data where it resides or while it moves: smart storage and NICs, programmable switches, processing in or near memory, smart DMA engines, perhaps programmable memory controllers.

Interconnects. **CXL** (Compute Express Link) is an open cache-coherent interconnect between CPUs, accelerators and memory devices. It distinguishes accelerators without local memory (type 1), accelerators with local memory such as GPUs, ASICs and FPGAs (type 2), and memory expansion devices (type 3); CXL 3.x moves towards fabric-attached memory with memory pooling and sharing. Networks have low latency and high bandwidth: InfiniBand in high-performance computing, 400–800 Gbit/s Ethernet already deployed in data centres, 1.8 Tbit/s emerging.

A single machine today. A server CPU of 2026 (AMD EPYC, 6th generation) has up to 256 cores (512 threads) and a 1 GB L3 cache; a two-socket server holds up to 4 TB of DRAM, with 1–1.6 TB/s of memory bandwidth per socket.

2.2 The memory hierarchy and locality

Memory pyramid. Storage technologies trade capacity for speed: the closer to the CPU, the smaller, faster and more expensive per byte (fig. 4). Registers hold 8-byte words; three levels of on-chip SRAM cache follow (L2 used to be off-chip), the third being the **last-level cache** (LLC); then main memory (DRAM), SSDs and hard disks. Other memory technologies offer more bandwidth than DRAM: up to 1 TB/s for GDDR and 3–5 TB/s for HBM.

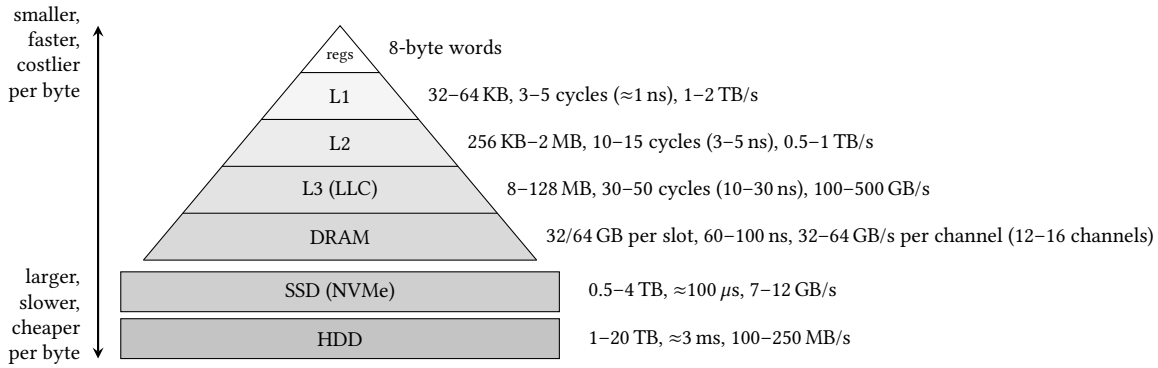


Figure 4: The memory hierarchy with typical capacity, latency and bandwidth of each level.

Latency numbers. Table 5 extends the hierarchy to storage, network and other frequent operations (a list originally compiled by Jeff Dean). Between 2012 and 2026 bandwidth improved dramatically (sequential SSD bandwidth from about 1 to 14 GB/s, DRAM bandwidth by up to a factor of 10, depending on the platform), whereas latency often did not. These numbers allow back-of-the-envelope estimates of the running time to expect, and show what to keep off the critical path (the hot loop).

Operation	2012	2026
CPU cycle	0.3 ns	0.2 ns
L1 cache reference	0.5 ns	1 ns
branch mispredict	5 ns	3–5 ns
L2 cache reference	7 ns	3 ns
L3 cache reference	–	10–20 ns
main memory (DRAM) access	100 ns	80–120 ns
read 1 MB sequentially from memory	250 µs	10–30 µs
SSD random read (4 KB)	150 µs	50–100 µs
read 1 MB sequentially from SSD	1 ms	35–100 µs
disk seek (random access)	10 ms	5–10 ms
read 1 MB sequentially from disk	20 ms	4–10 ms
round trip within a data centre	500 µs	< 1 ms
intercontinental round trip	150 ms	140–160 ms

Table 5: Latency numbers, 2012 and representative 2026 values.

Example 2.2 (Back-of-the-envelope estimates)**.** Scaling the 1 MB rows of table 5 by 1000, reading 1 GB sequentially takes about 10–30 ms from DRAM, 35–100 ms from an SSD and 4–10 s from a hard disk. Reading the same 1 GB as random 4 KB blocks from the SSD takes $2^{30}/2^{12} = 2^{18} \approx 2.6 \cdot 10^5$ random reads, i.e. $2.6 \cdot 10^5 \times (50\text{–}100\ \mu s) \approx 13\text{–}26$ s if they are issued one after the other: hundreds of times slower than the sequential read.

Cache lines. Caches move data in fixed-size units, the **cache lines** (typically 64 bytes): a miss loads a full line and an eviction removes a full line. A program should therefore use everything it brings into a line (fig. 5). A hardware **prefetcher** monitors the access pattern and, when it recognises a sequential or strided pattern, speculatively requests the next lines before the program loads from them.

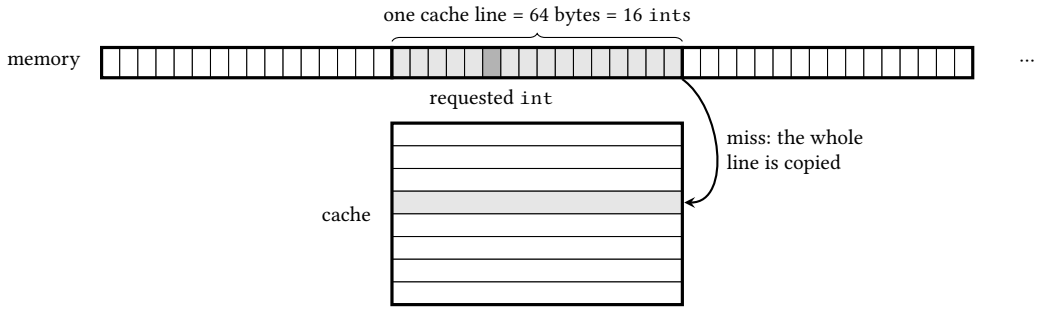


Figure 5: A cache of 8 lines: a miss on one `int` loads the whole 64-byte line that contains it.

Locality. Caches pay off thanks to the **principle of locality**. **Spatial locality**: data close to recently accessed data are likely to be accessed soon (arrays traversed with stride 1, instructions executed in sequence). **Temporal locality**: recently accessed data and code are likely to be accessed again (a function called repeatedly, a hot set of data that fits in the cache). The **stride** of an access pattern is the distance, in elements, between consecutive accesses.

Example 2.3 (Locality of a loop)**.** In the loop

```
sum = 0; for (i = 0; i < n; i++) sum += a[i]; return sum;
```

the variable `sum` is referenced in every iteration and the loop body is executed repeatedly (temporal locality of data and of instructions); the array `a` is read with stride 1 and the instructions are fetched in sequence (spatial locality of data and of instructions).

Traversal order. A two-dimensional C array `int a[M][N]` is stored in **row-major** order, row after row, so that $a[i][j]$ lies at address base + $4(iN + j)$ (an `int` has 4 bytes). The two functions below compute the same sum but visit the elements in different orders.

```
/* sum_array_rows */
for (i = 0; i < M; i++)
  for (j = 0; j < N; j++)
    sum += a[i][j];
```

```
/* sum_array_cols */
for (j = 0; j < N; j++)
  for (i = 0; i < M; i++)
    sum += a[i][j];
```

The row-wise loop visits consecutive addresses (stride 1); the column-wise loop jumps by a whole row at every step (stride N, i.e. $4N$ bytes), see fig. 6. With 64-byte lines the row-wise loop uses all 16 `int`s of each line it loads, so it misses at most once every 16 accesses, and the prefetcher recognises the pattern. The column-wise loop uses only one `int` of each line it loads; the other 15 belong to the next columns, but before the loop comes back to the same line it touches one line in every row, M lines in total. When they do not fit in the cache (for $M = 20\,000$ they occupy $20\,000 \times 64$ bytes ≈ 1.3 MB, more than L1 and L2) each line is evicted before it is reused, and almost every access misses in these caches.

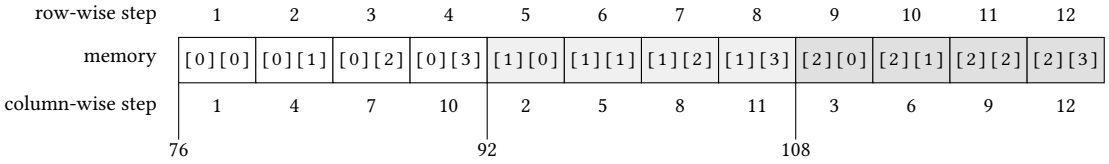


Figure 6: `int a[3][4]` in memory (addresses from 76) and the step at which each loop reads each element.

For a $20\,000 \times 20\,000$ matrix the column-wise function takes 16.98 s and the row-wise one 1.71 s, an order of magnitude; the profiler `perf` attributes about 76% of the CPU cycles and 87% of the cache misses of the program to the column-wise function. In a second experiment the number of elements is fixed at 10^9 and the shape varies from one row to one column: the row-wise loop takes about 2 s for every shape, while the column-wise loop is up to 50 times slower. Its working set is the set of lines it keeps reusing, one per row. With few rows these lines stay in the cache and the next columns find them there; as the number of rows grows the working set overflows L1, L2 and L3 in turn and the time rises. With fewer than 16 columns a line holds several consecutive rows, so even the column-wise loop reuses each loaded line more and more, and the gap disappears for a single column.

The memory mountain. The read throughput of a loop, measured as a function of the working-set size and of the stride, forms a surface with two kinds of features. Along the size axis throughput drops in steps, the **ridges of temporal locality**: one plateau for each level (L1, L2, L3, main memory) that holds the working set. Along the stride axis throughput decreases as the stride grows, the **slopes of spatial locality**, since fewer bytes of each loaded line are used. At stride 1 aggressive prefetching keeps throughput high even for large working sets (fig. 7). On a desktop processor with 32 KiB L1, 256 KiB L2 and 8 MiB L3 the peak (small working set, stride 1) is around 14 GB/s, more than ten times the throughput of large strides on working sets that only fit in main memory.

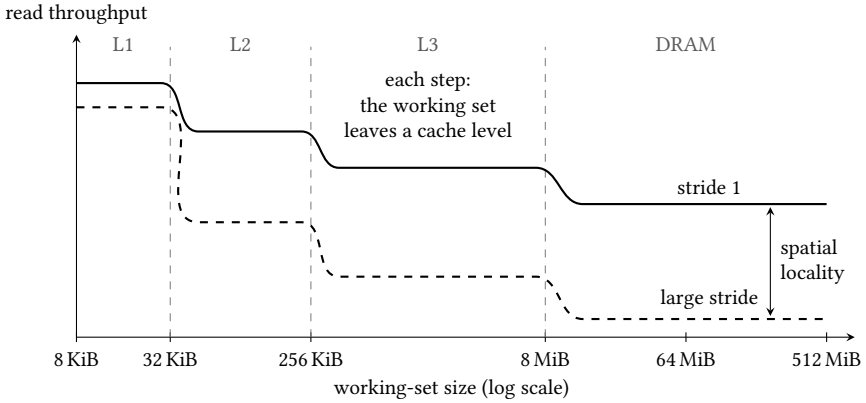


Figure 7: A cut of the memory mountain for two strides (schematic, illustrative values).

Cache-friendly code. The programmer controls how the data are organised (layout and alignment, section 2.3) and how they are accessed (the nesting of the loops, and **blocking**, i.e. processing the data in blocks that fit in the cache). Most of the benefit comes from generic rules: keep the working set small (temporal locality), use small strides (spatial locality), and focus on the innermost loop. The same considerations apply beyond caches:

- access pattern: sequential access is always better than random access, for DRAM as for hard disks;
- layout: the arrangement of the data in memory or storage should suit the workload, e.g. in databases, row stores for transactional workloads (OLTP: many short transactions that read or update whole records) and column stores for analytical ones (OLAP: queries that scan a few attributes of many records), see section 2.3;
- format: human-readable formats may not deliver the required performance; converting the data into an efficient format is one reason for **ETL** pipelines (extract, transform, load), more recently **ELT**, both treated later in the course.

Tools differ in how much control they give over these aspects.

2.3 Data layout in memory

Structures. A C `struct` is stored as one contiguous block of memory large enough for all its fields, which are placed in declaration order even when another order would be more compact. The compiler determines the size and the offset of every field; the machine code sees only addresses and offsets, not the structure. For instance `struct rec { int a[4]; long i; struct rec *next; }` occupies 32 bytes, with `a` at offset 0, `i` at 16 and `next` at 24.

Alignment. A primitive object of K bytes is **aligned** if its address is a multiple of K; for $K = 2^m$ this means that the lowest m bits of the address are zero (table 6). Memory is accessed in word-sized chunks, so loading or storing a value that spans a word boundary, and even more a cache-line boundary, is inefficient: an 8-byte `double` at address 60 crosses the line boundary at 64 and needs two lines (fig. 8); aligned data are therefore recommended for performance, although x86-64 hardware also works correctly on unaligned data.

K	Type	Address
1	`char`	no restriction
2	`short`	lowest bit zero
4	`int`, `float`	lowest 2 bits zero
8	`long`, `double`, pointers	lowest 3 bits zero
16	`long double`	lowest 4 bits zero

Table 6: Alignment of the primitive types on x86-64.

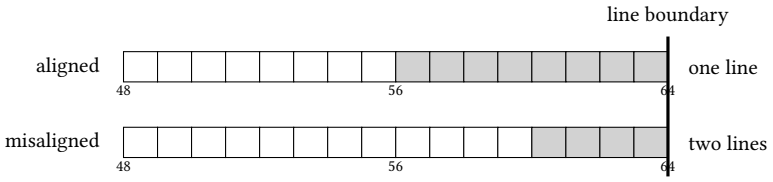


Figure 8: An 8-byte `double` at an aligned address (56) and at a misaligned one (60).

Padding. To respect alignment the compiler

- keeps the declared order of the fields;
- aligns each field within the struct, inserting padding before it if needed (`offsetof` gives the actual offset of a field);
- aligns the struct as a whole according to its largest field;
- makes the total size a multiple of that alignment, inserting padding at the end (`sizeof` gives the true size).

Padding wastes space (**internal fragmentation**), but the padded struct is faster to access than the packed one. Since the order is fixed, the programmer can often save space by declaring the large fields first.

Example 2.4 (Padding and reordering)**.** `struct S1 { char c; int i[2]; double v; }` packed would put `i` at offset 1 and `v` at 9, both misaligned (17 bytes). The compiler puts `i` at 4 (a multiple of 4) and `v` at 16 (a multiple of 8), after 3 and 4 bytes of padding: 24 bytes, a multiple of the struct's alignment 8. `struct S4 { char c; int i; char d; }` gets offsets 0, 4, 8, and its size is rounded up from 9 to 12, a multiple of 4. Declaring the `int` first, `struct S5 { int i; char c; char d; }` gets offsets 0, 4, 5 and size 8 (6 rounded up to a multiple of 4). See fig. 9.

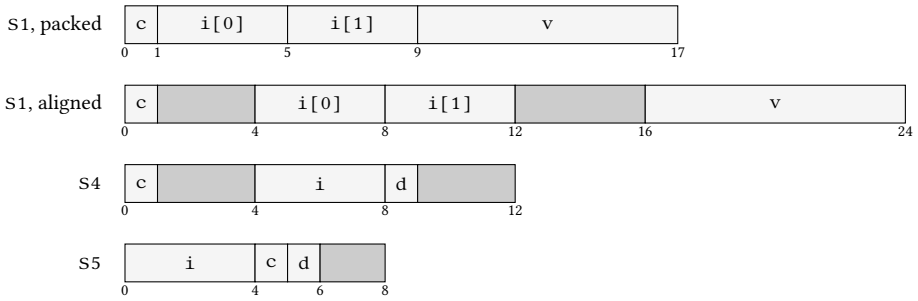


Figure 9: Byte layouts of `S1`, `S4` and `S5`; grey cells are padding.

The last two rules exist because of arrays: element k of an array of structs starts at k times the size of the struct, so every element, and with it every field, stays aligned only if the size is a multiple of the alignment. If `S4` had size 9, the second element would start at 9 and its `int` at 13 (fig. 10).

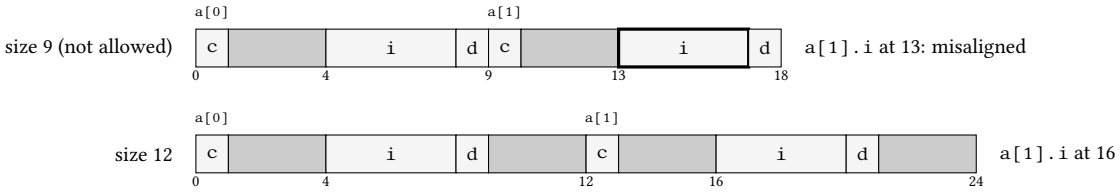


Figure 10: An array of two `S4`: without trailing padding the second `int` would be misaligned.

Variable-length data. Strings and other variable-length fields are split into a fixed-size header, which holds the length and a pointer to the data, and a variable-size tail placed at the end of the record and treated as having alignment 1, so that the fixed-size fields keep fixed, aligned offsets (fig. 11).

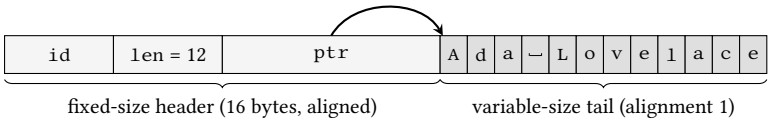


Figure 11: A record `(id, name)`: the header holds the length and a pointer to the string stored at the end.

Effect of alignment. Inserting tuples

```
struct { int primary_key; long timestamp; char color[2]; int zipcode; }
```

into an array (one socket, 4 hardware threads) reaches a throughput of 0.523 MB/s without alignment, 11.7 MB/s with padding, and 814.8 MB/s with reordered fields plus padding.

Array of structures and structure of arrays. A collection of records can be stored as an **array of structures** (AoS), each record contiguous in memory, or as a **structure of arrays** (SoA), one array per field (fig. 12); this is the distinction between a **row store** and a **column store**. An update that changes several fields of one record touches one place in AoS but several arrays in SoA; a scan of one field reads only that field's array in SoA, whereas in AoS every loaded cache line also carries the other fields.

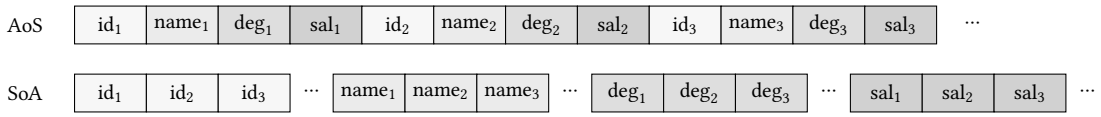


Figure 12: Three records `(id, name, degree, salary)` as an array of structures and as a structure of arrays.

Example 2.5 (AoS versus SoA)**.** On 100 million records `(id, name, degree, salary)`, changing the degree and the corresponding salary of 10 million records takes 126.58 ms in AoS and 195.66 ms in SoA, while summing all salaries takes 137.22 ms in AoS and 45.67 ms in SoA. AoS suits updates of whole records, as in OLTP (about 1.5 times faster here); SoA suits reads of few attributes, as in OLAP (3 times faster here).

2.4 Virtual memory and address translation

Each user-space process has its own **virtual memory**: the illusion of running alone on the machine with access to all of its memory. The addresses a program uses are **virtual addresses** (VA); the hardware translates them into **physical addresses** (PA) of the DRAM.

Pages. Virtual and physical memory are divided into blocks of fixed size, the **pages** (typically 4 KB), and the translation is defined page by page: each virtual page of a process is stored in some physical page of the DRAM, or is currently not in DRAM (kept on disk), or is unused. Consecutive virtual pages may sit anywhere in physical memory, and two processes may map one of their pages each to the same physical page (fig. 13). This provides

- isolation and protection: each process runs in its own virtual address space, which other processes can neither read nor overwrite;
- simpler memory management: the process sees a contiguous address space, while its physical pages may be scattered;
- efficient use of DRAM: the operating system can page data in and out of physical memory, keeping on disk the pages not in use and loading them back when needed;
- sharing: processes can safely share memory by mapping the same physical pages into their virtual address spaces (`mmap`, used in the next lecture).

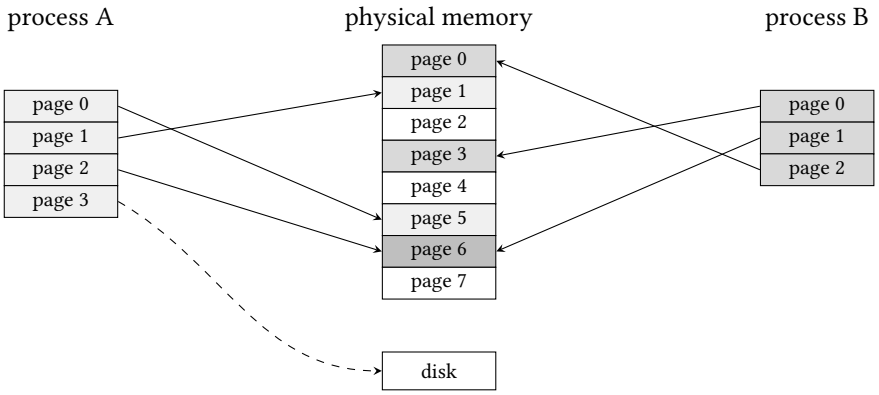


Figure 13: Virtual pages of two processes mapped to physical pages (illustrative mapping); the darkest physical page is shared by both, and one page of A is on disk.

Address translation. Since translation works page by page, an address is split into a page number and an **offset** within the page: with pages of 4 KB = 2^{12} bytes the lowest 12 bits are the offset and the remaining ones form the **virtual page number** (VPN). The **page table** (PT) of the process, kept in memory, has one **page table entry** (PTE) per virtual page, which contains the number of the physical page that holds it (PPN). The physical address is the PPN followed by the unchanged offset (fig. 14).

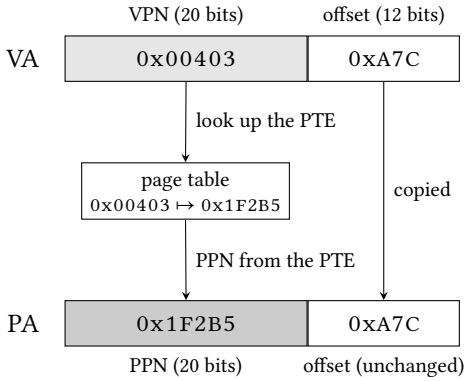


Figure 14: Translating a virtual address with 4 KB pages (32-bit addresses, illustrative values).

The translation is done by the **memory management unit** (MMU) on the CPU chip, in five steps:

1. the CPU sends the VA to the MMU;
2. the MMU computes the address of the PTE (PTEA: start of the page table plus VPN times the size of an entry) and requests it from cache or memory;
3. cache or memory returns the PTE;
4. the MMU forms the PA and sends it to cache or memory;
5. cache or memory returns the data to the CPU.

Every memory access thus requires a second access, to the page table, before the data can be read.

TLB. To avoid this extra access the MMU keeps a small cache of recent translations, the **translation lookaside buffer** (TLB), which maps VPNs to PTEs (fig. 15). On a **TLB hit** steps 2 and 3 are replaced by a lookup in the TLB, so the page table is not accessed at all. On a **TLB miss** the MMU fetches the PTE from cache or memory as above, stores it in the TLB, and then sends the PA. Hits are the common case thanks to locality: a 4 KB page holds 1024 `int`s, so a program that works on a few pages at a time needs only a few translations, and these stay in the TLB.

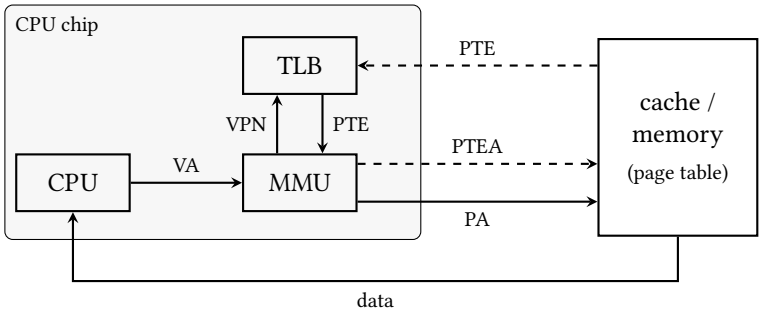


Figure 15: Address translation: solid arrows on a TLB hit; the dashed ones are added on a TLB miss.

Example 2.6 (TLB and traversal order)**.** Scanning an `int` array sequentially needs one new translation every 1024 elements, so at most one TLB miss per 4 KB page. In the column-wise traversal of a $20\,000 \times 20\,000$ `int` matrix consecutive accesses are one row, i.e. 80 000 bytes, apart, so each of them falls in a different page and needs its own translation, and one column touches 20 000 pages, far more than a TLB holds.

A Command reference

The commands and flags of the command-line tools, grouped by the relational operator they implement (section 1.3).

Streams

`a | b`	stdout of a into stdin of b
`cmd > f`	stdout to file `f`
`cmd < f`	stdin from file `f`
`cmd 2> /dev/null`	discard stderr

Stream ids: 0 stdin, 1 stdout, 2 stderr. `cmd f` = `cat f | cmd`.

Read and inspect

`cat f1 f2`	concatenate to stdout
`cat -v f`	show non-printing bytes
`zcat bzcat xzcat`	decompress to stdout (gzip, bzip2, xz)
`... | less`, `-S`	page through; `-S` chops long lines
`head -n k`	first k lines (also `head -k`)
`tail -n k`	last k lines
`tail -n +k`	from line k on (skip $k-1$)
`head -n -k`	all but the last k (GNU only)
`wc`, `-l`, `-c`	lines, words, bytes; lines only; bytes only

Selection and extraction: grep

`grep 're' f...`	lines matching `re`
`-v`	non-matching lines (negation)
`-i`	ignore case
`-o`	only the matched part, one per line
`-E`	extended regex (`+ ? {}` work)
`-a`	treat binary input as text

Regular expressions

`.`, `\.`	any character; a literal dot
`[a-z0-9_]`, `[^abc]`	one character of / not of a class
`[[:space:]]`, `[[:digit:]]`	whitespace; digit
`r*`	zero or more `r`
`r+`, `r?`	one or more; zero or one (`-E`)
`r{n}`, `r{n,}`, `r{n,m}`	n; $\geq n$; n to m (`-E`)
`^`, `$`	start, end of line
`(r)`, `r|s`, `\1`	group; alternative; back-reference (`-E`)
`\(r\)`, `\{n,\}`	the same in basic syntax

Quote the regex: `'...'`. Greedy: `.*` takes the longest match.

Projection: cut

`cut -f 1,3`	fields 1 and 3 (delimiter: tab)
`cut -f 2-4 -d ','`	fields 2 to 4, comma separated
`cut -c 1-10`	characters 1 to 10

Ignores CSV quoting.

Sorting: sort

`sort`	lexicographic (`10` before `9`)
`-n`	numeric
`-k f`	key from field f (`-k f,f`: only field f)
`-t ','`	field separator
`-u`	drop duplicates

Works beyond main memory.

Grouping: uniq (sorted input!)

`uniq`	one copy per line (distinct)
`uniq -c`	prefix each line with its count
`uniq -d`	lines occurring more than once
`uniq -u`	lines occurring exactly once

Join: join (both inputs sorted on the join field!)

`join f1 f2`	inner join on field 1
`-1 f -2 g`	join field f of `f1`, g of `f2`
`-t ','`	delimiter
`-a 1` / `-a 2`	left / right outer join
`-a 1 -a 2`	full outer join
`-v 1` / `-v 2`	left / right anti-join (unmatched only)

Map: sed

`sed 's/re/new/'`	replace first match per line
`s/.../.../g`	replace all matches
`s/.../.../I`	ignore case (GNU)
`&`, `\1`	in new: whole match, group 1
`-e '...' -e '...'`	several commands
`s:a/b:a_b:`	any delimiter instead of `/`

Aggregation: awk

`awk 'BEGIN { init } { per line } END { final }'`
`$1`, `$2`, ...: fields (whitespace separated).

`{ n++ } END { print n }`	count
`{ s+=$2 } END { print s }`	sum of field 2
`{ s+=$2; n++ } END { print s/n }`	average of field 2
`{ if ($1 > 10) s+=$2 }`	conditional sum

Sampling: shuf

`shuf | head -n k`	random sample of k lines

Patterns

count matching lines	`grep 're' f | wc -l`
distinct values	`cut -f 2 f | sort -u`
k most frequent	`sort | uniq -c | sort -n | tail -n k`
lines seen once	`sort | uniq -u`
min / max	`sort -n | head -n 1` / `tail -n 1`
in A but not in B	`sort A > a; sort B > b` `join -v 1 a b`
one word per line	`sed 's/[[:space:]]/\n/g'` (GNU)

Pitfalls

Sort before `uniq` and `join`. Sort counts with `-n`. Without `-E`, `+` is a literal plus. Binary bytes in a text file: `grep -a`. `uniq -u` ≠ distinct.